

Organizational Change and Culture in Universities as Non-profit Organizations

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Chaffee and Tierney (1988)¹ argued

" Institutions are certainly influenced by powerful external factors, such as demographics, economic, and political conditions, yet they are also shaped by strong forces that emanate from within. This internal dynamic has its roots in the history of the organization and derives its force from the values, traditions, processes, and goals held by those most intimately involved in the organization's workings. The most fundamental construct of an organization, as of a society is its culture. An organization's culture is reflected in what is done, how it is done, and who is involved in doing it. It concerns decisions, actions, and communication both on an instrumental and symbolic level."

The role of culture for organizational development and performance has been stressed and analysed by various writers on the subject. What we are inquisitive about, for the purpose of this thesis, however is the role of culture in relation to changes in the higher education sector and its effect on management style. In our literature review culture has emerged as one of the most important factors that internally govern change in universities.

William Taylor² wrote " *Organizations differ according to their history, purpose and structure, in the scope of their moral and cultural integration, and to the extent to which commitment to values and exemplary behaviour is required or enforced.*"

Taylor further argues that "*universities are engaged in sacred rather than utilitarian activities, yet the diversity of these activities does not make for high levels of moral integration. This can give rise to particular difficulties when they attempt to act corporately in the face of external threat.*"

Culture can be defined as an interpretation of internalized knowledge and experience by a way of social behaviour. This means that any knowledge or experience which is internalized by an individual will be reflected in his or her behaviour. This same phenomenon can be expected to be observed in organizations where a collection of individual cultures are combining to make up an organizational culture. However the more diversified individual cultures are the more complex the organizational culture becomes. Furthermore the more diversified the activities, experiences fields of learning and learning processes are the more difficult it will be to translate the culture of organization into meaningful plan of actions and practices.

Universities are places where there is a continuous process of learning in various differing fields and disciplines. At the same time employees of these institutions are overwhelmingly academic who are semi-professional in nature as well as being

academic and in some circumstances managerial, administrative and even executive. Emphasis on new managerialism in universities since 1980s also resulted in some universities having more employees who are exclusively executive, managerial and administrative with a number of workers as 'supporting/administrative staff' experiencing some confusion as to where their support should go. To complete the picture we have the student body. They also have influence in shaping a university's culture and they too come from very diverse backgrounds.

With such a complex composition of academic, administrative, managerial staff and students it would be rather naive to expect to see a simple pattern of organizational behaviour in universities. Baldrige et al³ suggested that universities are distinguished by six characteristics:

- (1) Goal ambiguity,
- (2) Professional staff
- (3) High level of autonomy of sub-units
- (4) Part-time decision-makers
- (5) Environmental vulnerability and
- (6) Undifferentiated functions.

Academics, it is argued, experience a divided loyalty between the discipline at large, their peers at national and international level, and the local institution. Those with primary loyalty to the discipline, the scholarly community described as 'cosmopolitans', and those whose first loyalty is to the institution, 'locals'. The cosmopolitan tendencies of many staff result in diminished administrative power over them as they receive their rewards and status in part from the international peer group. As their functions and responsibilities change academic bureaucrats perceive and can enforce different priorities.

It is further argued that professionalism is based on expertise, and it is this expertise that is acknowledged in peer evaluation. It is a matter of adhering to the standards in the discipline, and therefore peer evaluation is accepted and enforced. Peer evaluation has a long tradition in universities, though largely confined to research and writing.

High Level Autonomy of Sub-Units is found by Baldrige et al to have resemblance to Cohen and March's (1974) "organized anarchies", to Clark (1977) describing universities as "bottom heavy"; and also to Weick (1976) speaking of universities as "loosely coupled systems". The argument is that academics find it often easier to talk to colleagues in the discipline elsewhere than to colleagues from other departments in their own universities. Thus communication across departments may be poor and individual and departmental goals may be pursued which are not necessarily in harmony with the institutions.

Universities are also characterized by having **Part-time Decision-makers**, in its councils as well as its academic administrators and committees. This makes universities very different from business organizations where resources and people are managed through hierarchical controls.

Lockwood (1985) also quoted by Baldrige favours the part time status of the senior academic management as found in Britain. He claims that the continuing involvement in academic activities is necessary for 'heads' and 'deans' own careers, helps them to

remain in close contact with the activities and personnel they are helping to administer, and to retain the confidence of the academic staff.

Environmental Vulnerability means that with most of the funds coming from the government in most of the countries, universities are very dependent on the autonomy that governments grant and aware of the power of interference they have and sometimes exercise.

Finally **Undifferentiated Function** describes situations in the basic units of the American universities and the British and Australian universities in general there are neither a hierarchical of tutor-lecturer-senior lecturer-associate professor and professor in terms of direction nor are there a clear or consistent differentiation in function. Lecturers like professors are expected to perform teaching duties and to do research, to engage in professional activities and to take on administrative tasks. This is closely connected to the notion of 'community of scholars', of looking at colleagues as peers, not as superiors or inferiors in terms of position.

In the academic hierarchy there is little direction. There is an acknowledgement that the senior members have the advantage of more experience and accumulated expertise, but that the younger staff will achieve similarly.

Trice and Beyer in their book titled "The Cultures of Work Organizations" suggest that:

"Cultures are collective phenomena that embody people's responses to the uncertainties and chaos that are inevitable in human experience. These responses fall into two major categories. The first is the substance of a culture - shared, emotionally charged belief systems that we call ideologies. The second is cultural forms - observable entities, including actions, through which members of a culture express, affirm, and communicate the substance of their culture to one another. Clearly, people in organizations develop both cultural substance and cultural forms. Out of these processes cultures grow. Cultures are a natural outgrowth of social interactions that make up what we call organizations. -

Substance of a culture stems from mainly ideologies. Since ideologies generate powerful beliefs these beliefs in turn create strong emotions that generates synergy among the individuals of an organization. Trice and Beyer quotes Geertz⁵ referring to two major explanations for the origins and role of ideologies in human culture: Interest theory and strain theory: Interest theory is much emphasized by the Marxian theories as ideology being a tool for a continuous struggle between social classes to achieve economic interests through political power. Strain theory on the other hand takes a broader view of ideology and explains that its general tenets are:

"(1) Social life inevitably produces ambiguities, conflicts, and other strains; and (2) that people use ideologies to deal with the anxieties arising from those strains. "⁶

Ideologies according to Geertz lessen strain by fulfilling four functions: catharsis, morality, solidarity, and advocacy. Geertz argues that

"The cathartic function is accomplished when emotional tension is lessened through projection of blame and anger onto symbolic

enemies. The moral function applies when ideologies either deny chronic strain outright or else legitimize its existence in terms of higher values. Solidarity is realized when ideologies knit a group or social class together by creating a sense of community. Finally, ideologies perform an advocacy function when they articulate strains, calling attention to them, often polarizing them, and in the process making it difficult to ignore and neglect them."

One could argue therefore that the stronger the strain and hardship in a particular society, organization or a group the more is the need for ideology in order to ease or relieve the effect of the strain. Rationality, Egalitarianism, Performance-oriented managerial ideologies, Social Darwinism, Industrial betterment, scientific management, Human relations, Quality of work life and Employee assistance programs are some ideological elements developed in American work organizations over the years.'

Cultural forms, on the other hand,

"condense and make cultural ideologies concrete. They serve as sense making mechanisms by which members of a culture can either consciously or unconsciously drive meaning from their situations. Collective sense making involves many social processes, including communication, influence, leadership, habit formation, conditioning, reciprocity, negotiation, imitation, role modelling, and exploratory action. "5

Therefore in order to understand any form of culture there is a need first to comprehend and recognize the ideologies that go with those cultural forms.

Organizational Sub-cultures and Occupational Principle

Trice and Beyer in their book further suggest that:

"An overall culture consists of some number of cultural elements that are embraced by practically everyone in an organization. Organizations can have both an overall culture and a multiplicity of subcultures.

...some sub cultural elements resemble the overall culture in which they are embedded in many ways, and others deviate markedly from it. The more unique the element of a subculture, the more it encourages members to loosen their commitment to the overall culture and generate shared rationalizations that allow them to violate significant aspects of it.

..... The most highly organized, distinctive, and pervasive sources of subcultures in work organizations are people's occupations. As such, they provide a good starting point for an examination of subcultures in organizations.

..... Thus occupational subcultures often compete with specific organizations' cultures for members' minds and hearts."

Occupational subcultures in other organizations like engineers or researchers in a large organization can be distinctive and can be influential if the numbers of these staff are sufficient to build up a strong constituency in the organization that has an overall culture evolved as a result of several other influences and subcultures. One of the strongest influences on this overall culture is the influence of the vision and ideology of the founder leader and the current leader of the organization.

In universities however academics make up the strongest occupational subculture in the organization and because the nature of service performed is also academic the influence of this particular subculture is much more superior and dominant than any other subculture including managerialism.

In free market economies, corporations are there to produce goods and services and in doing this to be able to survive, to grow and make money for their shareholders and in turn attract more investment for further survival and growth that will also bring more jobs better quality of life and as an indirect result contribute to the development of society. For this to happen it is a widely accepted phenomenon that corporations are to be managed well. Good management or managerialism therefore has become a strong ideology dominating the culture of these organizations. Academic researchers or engineers in such organizations make up their own subcultures; they tend to be subordinated to the ideology of managerialism.

Universities, on the other hand are for centuries given a much wider in some instances 'sacred' mission compared to private corporations in the sense that their primary aim is to produce knowledge and equip people with this knowledge. This function of universities requires a highly intellectual as well as qualified and skilful workforce very much similar to those medical doctors in hospitals whose job is to treat people who suffer from illness and sometimes even faced with death.

"Professional values usually emphasize the interests of individual clients. The code of ethics of physicians says they must put the welfare of patients above all other concerns; thus, the costs of treatment are peripheral concerns to the doctor. To the hospital administrator, costs are a much more central concern. Similarly, to the basic scientist, contributing to scientific progress is the ultimate goal; scientific norms thus dictate the full sharing of new findings and techniques with the rest of the scientific community. But private firms who employ scientists and have financed their research naturally want to preserve the secrecy of their discoveries and obtain patents for them so they can realize a financial return."⁹

It is therefore a very sensitive matter when such institutions are adapting certain management methods because the "occupational subculture" of those academics and medical doctors are very powerful and in some cases tend to subordinate or even assimilate management. It is not unusual to see a very successful medical doctor assigned to manage a hospital and similarly many higher education institutions tend to have academics that are successful in their discipline becoming Directors, Vice-Chancellors, Presidents or Rectors in Universities with no management training. This tendency in higher education institutions kept them at a distance from managerialism

for centuries and has administrative functions supporting academics especially at times when there is no financial hardship and funding requirement of universities was taken care by the state certainly in the UK, or by large endowment grants in the case of some private universities in the USA. However the changes in the funding environment and consequently tighter demand from the central governments are introduced, private foundation universities as well as some state universities are driven to be more market as well as industry oriented and therefore to seek to adapt certain management methods in order to cope with this changing circumstances.

"As their sense of identity as an occupation develops, members come to believe that, because of their technical knowledge, they collectively know best how to cope with certain task-related demands. They also come to see the demands of those outside the occupation as representing significant sources of uncertainty for them. In particular, administrative attempts to control their work create uncertainty because such attempts often spring from different ideologies and concerns than those of the occupation. Thus, to reduce their uncertainties and realize the ideologies they have developed about their work, as occupations develop "members seek autonomy and control over their particular and distinctive work" (Freidson 1982, p.54)"¹⁰

It is useful at this stage to demonstrate the table presented by Trice & Beyer, showing the relation between Management and Occupations:

Table 2-1 A Framework for Considering relations between Management and Occupations in Organizations'

Control by Administrative Principle			
		Predominant	Subordinate
Control by Occupational Principle	Predominant	(1) Mutual Tolerance and Accommodation Lawyers and Doctors in corporations Skilled craft workers	(3) Assimilation of management by occupation Universities Social work agencies Hospitals Police departments
	Subordinate	(2) Assimilation of Occupation by management Accountants Engineers Pharmacists Deskilled occupations	(3) Egalitarian Relations Food cooperatives Alternative Schools Health Collectives

Cell 2 is explained as *"representing situations where management has managed to dilute the control of occupational subcultures by providing career tracks that lead*

Trice & Beyer (1993): Adapted from Sonnenstuhl and Trice 1991.

occupational members into management or by simply reducing the skills required and thus the distinctiveness of an occupation."

Cell 3 represents the situation where occupational groups generate their own administrative structures to plan, direct, and control their work processes. In effect, the organizations involved grow up around the skills of members of that occupation and the organizations that result are made up almost entirely of members of that occupation. In such situations, the occupational principle predominates. Within law firms and accounting firms, members accept technical supervision only if it is carried out by a senior respected member of the occupation.

Members of each group-occupation and managers-may think they know best how work should be organized and carried out. Members of an occupation usually feel they need discretion to use their work-related expertise appropriately; members of management on the other hand feel they must exercise some measure of control to ensure efficiency and prevent opportunism. When members of occupations are successful in establishing such control, management decisions are significantly constrained. Furthermore, since workers do not need to depend on work organizations for their training, but instead on outside organizations or groups, they enter employing organizations as relatively independent agents who have allegiances to occupational groups outside the organization.

The following are some important passages further quoted from Trice & Beyer about the relationship and conflict between the Occupational principle or subculture and the administrative principle or managerialism.

"Despite the assimilation by members of these occupations of their administrators, differences in the sub cultural values between the two groups remain sources of conflict. Even in these settings administrators may feel obliged to enact the administrative principle. As long as occupational members believe that their administrative colleagues have the group's interests at heart, they show goodwill and cooperate with their directives. If, however, an administrator colleague is perceived as pursuing administrative interests to the detriment of the group, members will revolt and seek to replace the administrator (Feldman 1987)". Such instances are dramatic reaffirmations of the proper order of things. The welfare of the occupation comes before anything else.

Among the subcultures that occur frequently in organizations those forming around occupations seem especially prone to ethnocentrism. The consciousness of kind members develop makes "us" seem very different from "them".

Members of each group-occupation and managers-may think they know best how work should be organized and carried out. Both can have the same goals of achieving good work-related outcomes, yet differ substantially in the specifics of how they think work should be done. Members of an occupation usually feel they need discretion to use their work-related expertise appropriately; members of management feel they must exercise some measure

of control to 'ensure efficiency and prevent opportunism. Each sees work-related issues from the framework provided by their own experiences and ideologies.

.....One way to describe the situation is in terms of the distinction between the occupational principle and the administrative principle (Freidson 1973, p.19). According to the administrative principle, management dictates the division of labour in work organizations by deciding the way that tasks are divided and who will do them, and then trains and indoctrinates workers to perform according to those decisions. According to the occupational principle, certain workers have exclusive rights to perform certain kinds of work, to control training for the access to doing that work, and to control the way it is performed and evaluated (Freidson 1973, p.22).

.....The occupational autonomy of even the traditional professions could conceivably be reduced by recent developments in computerization and other technologies."

Effects of External Environment

Internal dynamics coming from the diversified cultural formation of universities is not the only force that influences how those institutions react to change, but the environmental culture is also one major force that will have a determining effect on how these institutions will behave in changing circumstances.

G. Hofstede¹² in his studies found that there are four different dimensions by which different societies in the world can be grouped in terms of their cultural behaviour: (1) Power distance (2) Uncertainty avoidance (3) Individualism (4) Masculinity

Power distance is a dimension where one can see differences in terms of how people perceive power sharing in a society. It is argued that in some societies, distinctively more than others, people with less or no power can readily accept a minority of ruling elite having a lot of power to determine their life and their future. Whereas in other societies people can be much more enthusiastic to share power and resist autocracy and centralization.

Uncertainty avoidance is another dimension where societies are apprehensive about uncertainty. One would expect to see a lot of anxiety that comes with anything not clear, new or unknown. People in these societies would like to see everything in black and white and written down rather than individuals bringing on their own initiatives or reforms of the existing rules and regulations since this could bring uncertainty.

Individualism as against collectivism is one other dimension where people who associate themselves with this type of a culture are only interested in self-interest and immediate family's interests. Although professional work could be quite possible and suitable in such cultures, somehow, collective work and work for institutional interest could be considered as rather idealistic and remote concepts.

Masculinity as against feminism is a dimension typical of some cultures in certain societies where power, things and money are the driving motive behind most behaviour as against Femininity where the dominant values are 'caring for others and quality of life'.

This study can lead us to suggest that it is not only the internal culture of universities that should be studied in order to understand reasons for reactions to change but we also need to evaluate the setting in which a university operates and look into the various elements of culture such as language, religion values and attitudes, tradition and customs

The above study carried out by Hofstede can be used to demonstrate that countries can be grouped into societies with similar patterns of cultural dimensions and we can attempt to explore whether universities in different cultural settings are behaving in accordance with those dimensions the writer expects them to do.

If different countries are located on a map of Hofstede's cultural dimensions, it is quite interesting to see that universities in different countries with different dominating cultural dimensions would react to organizational change in a different kind of way to others.

This will be demonstrated with regard to the fieldwork we carried out in UK, USA, Turkey and Northern Cyprus: UK and USA described as Anglo is placed in Hofstede's map reflecting weak Uncertainty avoidance with more Masculinity as well as high individualism with moderately small power distance.

Turkey on the other hand as well as Greece in the same cultural category described as Near Eastern showed strong Uncertainty avoidance with moderately low masculinity on the one hand and Large power distance and low individualism on the other. Although Cyprus was not in the analysis list of Hofstede, due to strong historical, cultural and geographical links with Turkey and Greece we can assume that Northern Cyprus was also in the same category. The population of Cyprus is mainly Turks and Greeks.

Understanding the Organizational Culture as Change Agent in Universities

Writing on Culture and Change Chaffee & Tierney¹³ discovered that the manner in which institutions deal with change says much about their organizational culture. They argue that

" As values and norms come under pressure due to changing circumstances both internally and in the environment, leaders and constituents must re-evaluate the purpose and direction of the institution, and this, in turn influences the organization's structure."

Seven universities in different settings and with different backgrounds are used in their study to demonstrate how different organizational cultures would react differently to change. They discovered that "tensions that arise from mismatches in the dimensions of organizational culture suggest the worth of seeking not only a dynamic equilibrium within the culture but also a coherent identity with regard to culture, strategy, and

leadership". Their argument leads to a conclusion that with a clear identity and direction organizations can achieve to move forward and cope with change at the same time. In their words "a coherent identity can create an upward spiral of achievement and satisfaction." ¹⁴

P.R. Trowler writing in his book titled "Academics Responding to Change: New Higher Education Frameworks and Academic Cultures"¹⁵ categorically opposes this approach taken by Chaffee & Tierney as well as the approach taken by David Watson in his book 'Managing Strategy'¹⁶ who argues that there is a

"necessity to get beyond 'common sense' approaches to genuinely professional approaches to the trickier areas of institutional life at the turn of the century: on, for example, human resources, business planning, estates development, financial security and external relations. What the sensible chief executive (or aspirant chief executive) acknowledges, is that she or he will need help, from other senior professionals, and not just from the other side of an apartheid-style division of 'faculty' and 'administrative' roles."

Watson continues to suggest that academic and especially institutional leadership can be a source of "pride and joy" and quotes the President of Cornell saying:

"The task of the college president, reduced to its essentials, is to define and articulate the mission of the institution; develop meaningful goals; and then recruit the talent, build the consensus, create the climate, and provide the resources to achieve them. All else is peripheral."

Trowler on the other hand argues that, there has to be a bottom-up element in all this and any institutional change to be successful needs the genuine and organized support from the grass roots members of the organization as well as having this objective and consensus driven leadership coming from the top.

"Senior management needs to provide leadership, but where goals are provided they need to be limited, achievable and provide room for negotiation and accommodation locally. Successful change is to more likely to come about when there is consensus above and pressure below, a 'change sandwich', rather than simply flow from above."

"The top-down/bottom-up relationship needs to be one of dialogue, negotiation and learning from experience. Dialogue is usually best conducted on the basis of mutual comprehension and for managers it is particularly important to understand the nature of contemporary cultural configuration of their institution."

If external cultures affecting the institutions, organization's own culture as well as occupational and other subcultures developed over the years in academic institutions are not carefully understood and taken into consideration in any sort of change effort, the top management will face with a second level management consisting of deans

and heads who are left in a contradictory role not knowing where their loyalty is placed. This divided loyalty will threaten both the morality as well as the harmony of the institution and prevent it to demonstrate the dynamism that is much needed for substantial change. It might even result in a different form of change which might carry the institution into a form which will not be well received by its stakeholders and its constituencies.

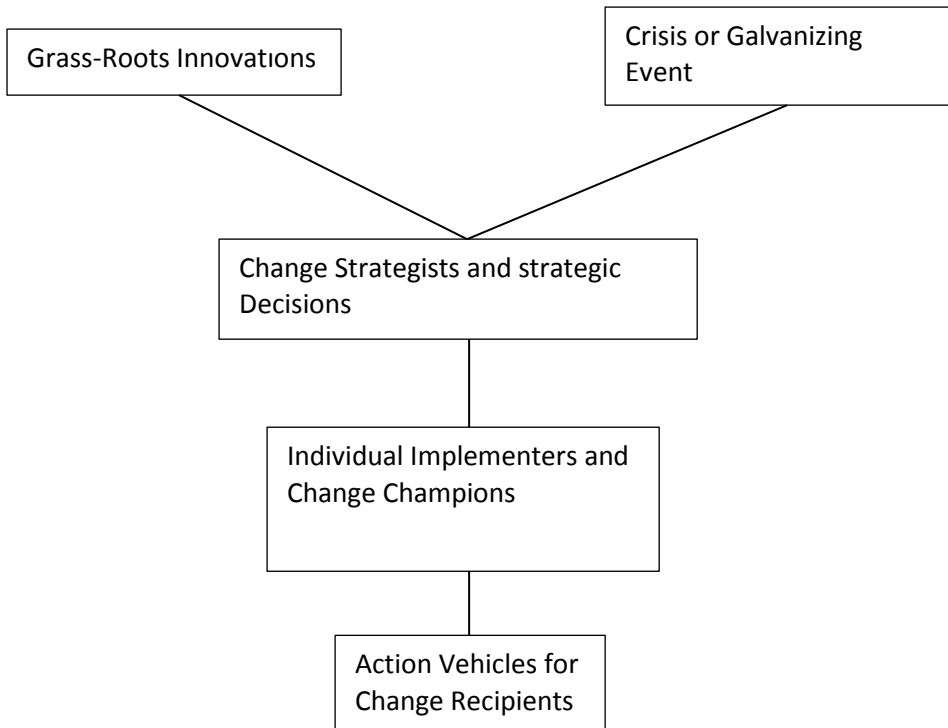
Kanter, Stein and Jick¹⁷ writing on Organizational Change argues that:

"Unrealistic portrayal of the change process can be dangerous. Already organizations are inclined to push faster, spend less, and stop earlier than the process requires. Such inclinations are further strengthened by an illusion of control that in fact does not exist. Managers are sometimes misled by consultants or authors who make change seem like a bounded, defined, discrete process with guidelines for success. They feel deceived; instead of a controllable process, they discover chaos.

In the real world, organizations cannot plot one change to be rationally and tenaciously pursued. Most corporations must stake out multiple changes at once, and the change goals themselves must be continually re-examined, altered, added to, or even abandoned. Instead of one vision to guide an organization's overall direction, many companies find they must pursue separate and sometimes even competing visions, such as quality vision, a customer vision, and a human resource vision. Instead of one powerful, centralized change leader, many companies now rely on teams of collaborating individuals who hammer out the emerging details of the change process through bargaining, compromise, and negotiation."

Kanter, Stein and Jick, attempts to answer the question 'How change really comes about?' and describes a 'Change Funnel' as below:

Figure 2-1- Channel Funnel for Grass Roots Innovations



Unplanned and unexpected happenings arising from a variety of experiences and subcultures within an organization sometime also described as 'loose coupling' may give rise to the **Grass-roots Innovations**. This foundation in experience, according to the authors, that can be used to solve new problems as they arise or to replace existing methods with more productive ones.

The second cluster of forces called **Crises or Galvanizing Event** causes the organization to pay attention to the need for change can be external such as the funding system for universities or can be internal such as an alternative technology or new demands from higher level officials. If stakeholders indicate that they will not be satisfied with the same old response to these crises or Galvanizing event than a non-traditional solution may be sought.

Coming to the stage of Change Strategists and Strategic Decisions, grassroots innovations are used to deal with crises and other events that require change, and strategies are required in order to channel these grassroots innovations to the right aim without having them drift away.

Any strategy will need people with power to push forward the ideas agreed upon. The se can be **Individual Implementers or Change Champions**.

"Leaders push change in part by repetition, by mentioning the new idea or the new practice on every possible occasion, in every speech, at every meeting. What is important about such communication is certainly not the pat phrases but that they remind people about the firm commitment of leaders and implementers to the changes."

Finally the change recipients will need to know what the change means for them and how it is translated into their activities in the form of **Action Vehicles** that add mechanisms that allow the new action possibilities to be realized in practice.

Final Remarks

To conclude therefore, there is a very unique type of leadership needed to steer the universities in these hard times of change. Uniqueness stems from the unique character of the universities as organizations which are not similar to private corporations or public organizations. Uniqueness coming from the services they provide and uniqueness coming from its diverse, occupational, professional and sophisticated staff as well as students that make up the major part of the means of production.

The skills needed to lead such an organization must be complex and sophisticated too. Peter Drucker uses the example of a symphony orchestra in describing a new model leaner, flatter organization. In the orchestra

*" performers with different skills concentrate on perfecting their professional competence, while a single conductor coordinates the overall performance; performers with similar specialities form self managed work teams, operating without a bureaucratic hierarchy above them. corporate players to make good music together they must achieve a balance between concentrating on their own areas of skill and responsibility and working together with others."*¹⁸

¹Chaffee, E.E & Tierney, W. G. (1988) "Collegiate Culture and Leadership Strategies". New York: Macmillan Publishing Company.

²Taylor, W. (1986)"Culture & Leadership in Universities," Leadership & Organizational Culture, Thomas J. Sergiovanni & John E. Corbally (City: Publisher, 1986) Pages.

³Baldrige, J.V. Curtis D.V., Ecker, G.P., and Riley, G.L. (1977) "Alternative models of governance in Higher Education" In "Governing Academic Organizations" Edited by Baldrige, J. and Deal, T.Berkeley, Cal.: McCutchan

⁴Trice, H.M. and Beyer, J.M. (1993). 'The Cultures of Work Organizations'. Prentice Hall: New Jersey.

⁵Geertz, C. (1964) 'Ideology as a cultural system'. Pp 47-76 in Apter,D.E. (ed) 'Ideology and Discontent. New York:Free Press.

⁶Ibid

⁷Trice & Beyer (1993)

⁸Trice & Beyer (1993)

⁹Trice & Beyer (1993)

¹⁰Trice & Beyer (1993)

¹¹Feldman, S.P.(1987). The Crossroads of Interpretation: Administartion in Professional Organizations. 'Human Organizations, 46(2):95-102. Quoted by Trice & Beyer

¹² Hofstede, G. (1980) 'Culture's Consequences:International Differences in Work — Related Values'. Beverly Hills, Calif.: Sage Publications. Quoted in Rugman, A.M. & Hodgets, R.M (1995). ' International Business: A Strategic Management Approach'.McGraw Hill. Int Ed.

¹³Chaffee & Tierney (1988)

¹⁴Ibid

¹⁵Trowler, P.R. (1998). 'Academics Responding to Change: New Higher Education Frameworks and Academic Cultures'. SRHE:Buckingham: Open University Press

¹⁶Watson, D. (2000). 'Managing Strategy'. Buckingham: Open University Press

¹⁷Kanter, R.M., Stein, B.A. & Jick, T.D. (1992). ' The Challenge of Organizational Change: How Companies Experience it and Leaders Guide it'. New York: The Free Press.

¹⁸Drucker, P. (1988). 'The Coming of the new New Organizaton'. Harvard Business Review. Vol.66(Jan-Feb).
